

ENG502 Finals Solved

Q. Syntax (Topic 123)

The word 'syntax' comes originally from Greek and literally means 'a putting together' or arrangement. There was an attempt to produce an accurate description of the sequence or ordering 'arrangement' of elements in the linear structure of the sentence. In the more recent attempts to analyze syntactic structure, there has been a greater focus on the underlying rule system that we used to produce or 'generate' sentences.

Q. Tree Diagram (Topic 133)

The most common way to create a visual representation of syntactic structures is through tree diagrams. We can use the symbols introduced (Art=article, N = noun, NP = noun phrase) to label parts of the tree as we try to capture the hierarchical organization of those parts in the underlying structure of phrases and sentences. At the top of the tree diagram, we begin with a sentence (S), and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N) and VP into V and NP. At the top of the tree diagram, we begin with a sentence (S) and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N).

Q. Two Phrase Structure Rule: (Topic 134)

These are the rules that form phrases of different types e.g., noun phrase, verb phrase, and adjective phrase etc. A tree diagram can have two different ways: simply as a static representation of the structure of the sentence shown at the bottom of the tree diagram. Every single sentence can have a tree diagram. The other one is the dynamic format which is a way of generating not only that particular sentence, but a very large number of other sentences with similar structures. This second approach is very appealing because it would enable us to generate a very large number of sentences with what looks like a very small number of rules. These rules are called phrase structure rules.

These rules state that the structure of a phrase of a specific type will consist of one or more constituents in a particular order. Phrase structure rules present the information of the tree diagram in another format.

- ❖ $S \rightarrow NP VP$
- ❖ $NP \rightarrow \{\text{Art (Adj) N, Pro, PN}\}$
- ❖ $VP \rightarrow V NP (PP) (\text{Adv})$
- ❖ $PP \rightarrow \text{Prep NP}$

Q. Types of Meaning (Topic 141)

Semantics is the study of meaning in language. There is more interest in certain aspects of meaning than in others. There are different types of meanings. We can have the following types of meaning:

- ❖ **Lexical meaning** refers to the meaning of words that belong to one of the four lexical word classes. It is the aspect of meaning usually given in a dictionary.
- ❖ **Grammatical meaning** includes the meaning of grammatical items (e.g., function words and inflectional affixes), grammatical functions (e.g., subject and object), and different sentence-types (e.g., declarative and interrogative). Taking into account certain non-linguistic aspects of meaning, Geoffrey Leech (1981) lists seven different types of meaning.
- ❖ **Referential meaning** (also called denotative meaning, descriptive meaning, conceptual meaning, or sense) refers to the logical, cognitive, or denotative content of an expression.
- ❖ **Connotative meaning** (associative meaning) denotes the associations and secondary meanings the expression evokes.
- ❖ **Social meaning** (stylistic meaning) is the information that the linguistic expression conveys about certain social characteristics.
- ❖ **Emotive or affective** component of the expression is referred to as its affective meaning. Social meaning and affective meaning together are sometimes called connotation.
- ❖ **Reflected meaning** refers to certain associations with another sense of the same expression, whereas collocative meaning (collocation) is conveyed by characteristic word combinations.
- ❖ **Thematic meaning** denotes the organization of a message in terms of information structure.

Q. briefly explain Denotative meaning (Topic 142)

Conceptual meaning or denotative meaning covers those basic, essential components of meaning that are conveyed by the literal use of a word. It is the type of meaning that dictionaries are designed to describe. Some of the basic components of a word like 'needle' in English might include "thin, sharp, steel instrument." These components would be part of the conceptual meaning of needle. However, different people might have different associations or connotations attached to a word like needle. They might associate it with "pain," or "illness," or "blood," or "drugs," or "thread," or "knitting," or "hard to find" (especially in a haystack), and these associations may differ from one person to the next. These types of associations are not treated

as part of the word's conceptual meaning. In a similar way, some people may associate the expression low-calorie, when used to describe a product, with "healthy," but this is not part of the basic conceptual meaning of the expression (i.e., "producing a small amount of heat or energy").

Q. Connotative mean? (Topic 143)

Write a brief note: Connotative meaning is what people think about two words and find whether it is possible or impossible for the word to have two different meanings from its denotative meaning. Based on it, the meaning depends on personal interpretation. Sometimes, people have the same or different thought. Sometimes when a word has both positive and negative sense value, the word is called a connotative meaning word. It is also pointed out that connotation meaning is subjective, in notion that there is a shift from common meaning because it has been added by sense and certain value, for example, bookworm is used for a person who always read books, with a negative sense. Connotative meaning is the communicative value that an expression has, by virtue of what it refers to, over and above its purely conceptual content. It can vary from age to age, from society to society, and from individual to individual.

Q. explain Prosody (Topic 145)

Prosody is the study of the tune and rhythm of speech, and the way these features contribute to meaning. Prosody features apply to a level above that of the individual phoneme and very often to sequences of words. Speech contains various levels of information that can be described as;

- ❖ **Linguistic** - direct expression of meaning
- ❖ **Paralinguistic** - may indicate attitude or membership of a speech community
- ❖ **Non-linguistic** - may indicate something about a speaker's vocal physiology, state of health or emotional state.

In linguistics, prosody is concerned with properties of syllables and larger units of speech. These contribute to linguistic functions such as intonation, tone, stress, and rhythm. Prosody may reflect various features of the speaker or the utterance: The emotional state of the speaker; the form of the utterance (statement, question, or command); the presence of irony or sarcasm; emphasis, contrast, and focus or other elements of language that may not be encoded by grammar or by the choice of vocabulary.

Q. Role of instruments in Semantics: (Topic 150)

If an agent uses another entity in order to perform an action, that other entity fills the role of instrument.

- ❖ The boy cut the rope with an old razor.
- ❖ He drew the picture with a crayon.

In these examples with an old razor and with a crayon are ‘instrument’ with which the agent performed the action.

Q. Difference between Homonymy and Polysemy: (Topic 156)

Polysemy is the phenomenon whereby a single word form is associated with two or several related senses: face, foot, get, head and run are some examples of polysemy Homonymy is characterized as the phenomenon where a single word form is associated with two or several unrelated meanings, for examples, bank, mail, mole and sole, etc. Two forms may be distinguished via homonymy and for one of the forms also to have various uses via polysemy. The words date (a thing we can eat) and dates (a point in time) are homonyms. The ‘point in time’ kind of date is polysemous in terms of a particular day and month (on a letter), an arranged meeting time (an appointment), a social meeting (with someone we like), and even a person (that person we like).

Homophony	Homonymy	Polysemy
Two or more different (written) forms have the same pronunciation, are described as homophones	One form (written or spoken) has two or more unrelated meanings. They have separate histories and meanings. But they have exactly the same form.	Polysemy is an interesting phenomenon that concerns cases in which a word or phrase enjoys multiple, related meanings.
❖ bare/bear, ❖ meat/meet, ❖ flour/ flower, ❖ pail/pale, ❖ right/write	❖ bank (of a river) ❖ bank (financial institution) ❖ bat (flying creature) ❖ bat (used in sports) ❖ mole (on skin) ❖ mole (small animal)	❖ head the object on top of body, ❖ froth on top of a glass of beer, ❖ person at the top of a company or department ❖ foot (of person, of bed, of mountain) run (person does, water does, colors do)

Q. Concept of Metonymy in your own words (5) (Topic 157)

Metonymy is another type of relationship between words based simply on a close connection in everyday experience.

A container–contents relation (bottle/water, can/juice)

A whole–part relation (car/wheels, house/roof).

A representative–symbol relationship (king/crow.

The President/the White House).

Using one of these words to refer to the other is metonymy. He had the whole can. We also accept the White House has announced ...

Downing Street protested...

Filling up the car,

Answering the door,

Boiling a kettle,

Giving someone a hand,

Needing some wheels

Metonymy meanings are highly conventionalized and easy to interpret. However, making sense of such expressions often depends on context, background knowledge and inference. The strings are too quiet (music etc.). I prefer cable (regarding TV channels).

Q. Pragmatics is the study of “invisible” meaning, or how we recognize what is meant even when it isn’t actually said or written. (Topic 159)

A lot of shared assumptions and expectations exist when people try to communicate.

HEAT

ED

ATTEN

DANT

PARKI

NG

We can park a car in this place, that it’s a heated area, and that there will be an attendant to look after the car. Our interpretation of the ‘meaning’ of the sign is not based solely on the words, but on what we think the writer intended to communicate. We are actively involved in creating an interpretation of what we read and hear.

Q. Idea of Physical Context: (5) (Topic 160)

There are some very common words in our language that cannot be interpreted at all if we do not know the context, especially the physical context of the speaker. These are words such as here and there, this or that, now and then, yesterday, today or tomorrow, as well as pronouns such as you, me, her, him, it, and them. Some sentences of English are virtually impossible to understand

if we do not know who is speaking, about whom, where and when. Look at the following sentence:

You'll have to bring it back tomorrow because she isn't here today.

It contains a large number of expressions (you, it, tomorrow, she, here, today) that rely on knowledge of the immediate physical context for their interpretation (i.e., that the delivery driver will have to return on February 15 to 660 College Drive with the long box labeled 'flowers, handle with care' addressed to Ms. Ruby). Expressions such as tomorrow and here are obvious examples of bits of language that we can only understand in terms of the speaker's intended meaning.

Q. Explain Social cultural context... (Topic- 163)

Socio-cultural context refers to the idea that language is closely linked to the culture and society in which it is used. This means when language is learnt, the socio-cultural context in which it is used needs to be taken into consideration as well. Social-Cultural context still includes factors such as illiteracy rate, population geographic distribution, educational level and the populations' ethnic composition. All of these factors can influence the organization's performance, affecting its productivity level and product's quality patterns. Activities that can raise awareness of socio-cultural context include using stories, analyzing newspaper headlines, and looking at slang and idiomatic language.

Deixis/Deictic Expressions (Topic- 164)

Person deixis: To point to things (it, this, these boxes) and people (him, them, those idiots).

Spatial deixis: To point to a location (here, there, near that)

Temporal deixis: To a time (now, then, last week)

Q. Define Person deixis (Topic- 165)

Deixis is the phenomena of requiring contextual information to create the meaning of a phrase. The term of 'deixis' is used from the Greek word which means 'to show' or 'to indicate', used to denote the elements in a language which refer directly to the situation. It stipulates what a deictic reference to the participant role of a referent is such as:

- ❖ **The Speaker:** The utterer of a message. Deictic center of his/her own deictic references
- ❖ **The addressee:** The listener of a message
- ❖ **The Referents:** Neither speaker nor the addressee might present there but not addresses directly.

The deictic center is a reference point in relation to which a deictic expression is to be interpreted. The deictic center is also most typically the present time, location, participant role

and so forth of speaker. So, the speaker, the actual location and actual time of the utterance are respectively, the deictic center for the interpretation of 'I', 'here', 'now', e.g., 'I am here now

Q. Inference (Topic 169)

A successful act of reference depends more on the listener's ability to recognize what we mean than on the listener's 'dictionary' knowledge of a word we use.

- ❖ Where is the spinach salad sitting?
- ❖ He is sitting by the door.
- ❖ Can I look at your Chomsky?
- ❖ Sure, it is on the shelf over there.

It is clear that names associated with things (salad) may refer to people, and names of people (Chomsky) to refer to things. The key process here is called inference. An inference is additional information used by the listener to create a connection between what is said and what must be meant. The listener has to operate with the inference: 'If X is the name of the writer of a book, then X can be used to identify a copy of a book by that writer'. Similar types of inferences are necessary to understand someone who says that Picasso is in the museum or we saw Shakespeare in London or Jennifer is wearing Calvin Klein.

Q. Direct Speech Act: (Topic 174)

A direct relationship between the structure and the communicative function of the utterance is called direct speech act.

- ❖ We do not know something.
- ❖ We ask someone to provide the information.
- ❖ Can you ride a bicycle?

Q. note on Discourse Analysis (Topic 177)

Discourse - language beyond the sentence

Discourse Analysis –the study of language in texts and conversation

It can be considered in terms of the way language is used, even how pauses are used. It focuses upon certain questions;

- ❖ How we make sense of what we read?
- ❖ How we can recognize well-constructed texts as opposed to those that are jumbled or incoherent?
- ❖ How we understand speakers who communicate more than they say?
- ❖ And how we successfully take part in that complex activity called conversation?

Q. Origin of Discourse Analysis in your own word (5) (Topic 177)

The term discourse analysis was first employed by Zellig Harris as the name for ‘a method for the analysis of the connected speech or writing for continuing descriptive linguistics beyond the limit of a single sentence at a time and for correlating culture and language’ (Harris, 1952). The word ‘discourse’ is usually defined as ‘language beyond the sentence’ and so the analysis of discourse is typically concerned with the study of language in texts and conversation. As language-users, we are capable of more than simply recognizing correct versus incorrect forms and structures. We can cope with fragments in newspaper headlines such as: Trains collide; two die, and know that what happened in the first part was the cause of what happened in the second part. We have the ability to create complex discourse interpretations of fragmentary linguistic messages. Discourse analysis is the study of how stretches of language used in communication assume meaning, purpose, and unity for their users.

Q. Principles of CDA (Topic 178)

- ❖ Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse
- ❖ Ideologies are constructed and reflected in the use of discourse
- ❖ Power relations are performed through discourse.
- ❖ Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations.

Q. note on coherence: (Topic 181)

Coherence is the key to the concept ‘everything fitting together well’. It is beyond the text that exists in people, not in words or structures. It is people who ‘make sense’ of what they read and hear. People arrive at an interpretation that is in line with their experiences, the way the world is. Coherence is the own understanding of something based on personal experiences. It is a way to incorporate all the disparate elements into a single coherent interpretation, and a process of filling the gaps that exist in the conversation or in the texts. Coherence creates meaningful connections not actually expressed by the words. The process not restricted to trying to understand “odd” texts. In conversational interactions a great deal of what is meant is not actually present in what is said.

- ❖ **HER:** That’s the telephone.
- ❖ **HIM:** I’m in the bath.
- ❖ **HER:** O.K

She makes a request of him to perform action. He states reason why he cannot comply with request. She undertakes to perform action. To understand the conversation one requires a reasonable analysis of what took place in the conversation, then it is clear that language-users must have a lot of knowledge of how conversation works that is not simply “linguistic” knowledge.

Q. Discourse Typology: (Topic 182)

Language teaching divide discourse into two major categories:

- ❖ Spoken
- ❖ Written
- ❖ They are further divided into the following:
- ❖ Speaking and Listening
- ❖ Reading and writing

Spoken discourse is less planned and orderly in a conversation. It is more open to intervention by the receivers. Some kinds of spoken discourses are lesson, lectures, interviews, court trials etc. These spoken discourses are planned to some extent by the person who initiates the conversation, and the possibility of subordinate participants can be limited. In reading novel, one cannot influence its development. At times readers may affect the written discourse, e.g., a person is writing something and the response of the market can influence his writing. A teacher as a reader sends the essays back to the students to be rewritten. In the same way the editors ask writers to edit something from written material. The traditional division of spoken and writing is based on a difference in production. Fundamental distinction as far as discourse structure is concerned.

Q. Discourse as a dialogue (Topic 185)

Developmentally, dialogue comes first, both for the human species, and for the human individual. There is no hard evidence of the origins of language in prehistoric communities to assume that speech preceded writing and dialogue preceded monologue. The earliest written texts of Western European culture, the Socratic dialogues, present as conversation that modern writers would present as monologue. Perhaps some of this preference remains in modern practices which favour face-to-face interaction: lectures, job interviews, and news interviews. Turn-taking and interaction are among the first communicative skills. Parents hold ‘conversations’, even with very young babies, as the following ‘dialogue’ between a mother and her two-month-old daughter clearly shows:

- ❖ M: Whatcha gonna tell me?
- ❖ B:(Gurgling noise)
- ❖ M: Come on whatcha gonna tell me?
- ❖ B: (Two gurgling noise. Squeak. Blows air through lips)
- ❖ M: That’s a nice story. What else are you gonna tell me? Come on.
- ❖ B: (Gurgling and dribbling noise) M: Let’s hear some more.

Q. The Method of Understanding Discourse: (Topic 187)

The role of knowledge in discourse production and comprehension has been a result of findings in the field of artificial intelligence in order to program computers for producing and

understanding discourse. These programs need more than the language being used; it involves pre-existent knowledge of the world. Artificial Intelligence tries to understand how this knowledge and language interact and to reproduce the process in computers. For discourse analysis, the most important idea to come out of the field of Artificial Intelligence (AI) is 'knowledge schemata'. Mental representations of typical situation used in discourse processing to predict the content of the particular situation, which the discourse describes. Mind stimulated by key words or phrases in the text, or by the context, activates a knowledge schema and uses it to make sense of the discourse. To program a computer AI needs to reproduce the process and to give computers both the necessary language knowledge and necessary schemata. This is difficult for the existing computers. How mental schemata operate in discourse production and comprehension. When a sender judges his receiver's schema to correspond to a significant degree with his own, he only needs features which are not contained in it. Other features need to be present by default.

Q. Rules of Politeness (3) (Topic 193)

Politeness principle, like co-operative principle, may be formulated as a series of maxim, which people assume are being followed in the utterances of others. Any flouting of these maxims will take on meaning, provided it is perceived for what it is. Robin Lakoff (1973) formulated the following maxims:

- ❖ Don't impose
- ❖ Give option
- ❖ Make your receiver feels good

These maxims explain many of those utterances with no new information

- ❖ I'm sorry. I saw you were home.

In English requests or pleas are made in the form of elaborate question.

- ❖ 'Could you possible '
- ❖ 'May I ask you to '
- ❖ 'I am sorry to bother you'
- ❖ 'You know much more about cars than I do'

Clearly, the cooperative and politeness principles are in conflict with each other whereas politeness and truth are mutually incompatible with each other. 'How is my new hairstyle'? These conflicting demands of the two principles are something which people are aware of, for example, 'a white lie'

Q. Major branches of applied linguistics (Topic 202)

- ❖ **Bilingualism:** the ability of an individual or the members of a community to use two languages effectively.
- ❖ **Multilingualism:** ability to use multiple languages is known as multilingualism.
- ❖ **Conversation analysis:** an approach to the study of social interaction and talk-in-interaction has exerted significant influence across the humanities and social sciences including linguistics.
- ❖ **Contrastive linguistics:** a practice-oriented linguistic approach that seeks to describe the differences and similarities between a pair of languages.
- ❖ **Sign linguistics:** any unit of language (morpheme, word, phrase, or sentence) used to designate objects or phenomena of reality.
- ❖ **Language planning and policy:** Decisions about language policies, requirements, and practices have important consequences in all social contexts. Language planning refers to deliberate efforts to influence the behavior of others through language codes.
- ❖ **Pragmatics:** the study of the use of linguistic signs, words and sentences, in actual situations.

Q. Types of Aphasia (Topic 213)

- ❖ **Broca's Aphasia or Motor Aphasia:** This type is characterized by a substantially reduced amount of speech, in which distorted articulation and slow and often effortful speech are noted.
- ❖ **Agrammatic:** In this type the speech consists entirely of lexical morphemes (e.g., nouns, verbs) whereas there are frequent omissions of functional morphemes (e.g., articles, prepositions) and inflections (e.g., plural -s, past tense -ed). Here is an example. I eggs and eat and drink coffee breakfast my cheek ... very annoyance ... main is my shoulder ... aching' all round here. The patient faces difficulty in articulating single words. However, comprehension is typically much better than production.
- ❖ **Wernicke's Aphasia or Sensory Aphasia:** The person with it has difficulties in auditory comprehension. He produces very fluent speech but feels difficulty to make sense. He uses very general terms. 'I can't talk all of the things I do, and part of the part I can go alright, but I cannot tell from the other people'. He finds difficulty in finding the correct word, sometimes referred to as anomia.
- ❖ **Conduction Aphasia:** This aphasia is less common, as it is associated with damage to the arcuate fasciculus and is called conduction aphasia. In its symptoms, the person mispronounces words, but typically do not have articulation problems. He is fluent, but may have disrupted rhythm because of pauses and hesitations. His comprehension of spoken words is normally good. He produces words like the following: vaysse and fosh for 'base' and 'wash'. Language disorders described above are almost always the result of injury to the left hemisphere.

Q. Critical period in language acquisition (Topic 215)

The apparent specialization of the left hemisphere for language is usually described in terms of lateral dominance or lateralization (one-sidedness). Since the human child does not emerge from the womb as a fully articulate language user, the lateralization process begins in early childhood. It coincides with the period during which language acquisition takes place. During childhood, there is a period when the human brain is most ready to receive input and learn a particular language. This is sometimes called the ‘sensitive period’ for language acquisition, but is more generally known as the ‘critical period’. Though some think it may start earlier, the general view is that the critical period for first language acquisition lasts from birth until puberty. If a child does not acquire language during this period, for any reason, then it is almost impossible for him/her to learn language later on. Many unfortunate well documented cases provide us insight about what happens when the critical period passes without adequate linguistic input.

Q. Standard Varieties of English in World: (Topic 217)

There are different standard varieties of English in the world:

- ❖ British English
- ❖ North American English,
- ❖ Australian English
- ❖ Indian English, etc.

Standard Variety: It is an idealized variety, because it has no specific region. It is associated with administrative, commercial and educational centers, printed in newspapers and books, and used in the mass media regardless of region. It is more easily described in terms of the written language (i.e., vocabulary, spelling, grammar) than the spoken language.

Q. Accent and Dialect (3) (Topic 218)

- ❖ **Accent:** An accent is a manner of pronunciation peculiar to a particular individual, location, or nation. Technically, it is the description of aspects of pronunciation that identify where an individual speaker is from, regionally or socially.
- ❖ **Dialect:** Dialect includes the features of grammar and vocabulary as well as the aspects of pronunciation. You don’t know what you’re talking about. For example, ‘Ye dinnae ken whit yer haverin’ about.’ (by a speaker of Scottish English might say)

Q. Stages of Child language learning: (Topic 222)

The stages of language production by the children focusing primarily on the unfolding of lexical and syntactic knowledge are mentioned as follows:

Stage	Typical Age	Description
Babbling	6-8 months	Repetitive CV patterns
One- word stage (better onemorpheme or one- unit) or	9-18 months	Single open-class words or word stems

holophrastic stage		
Two-word stage	18-24 months	'mini-sentences' with simple semantic relations
Telegraphic stage or early multiword stage	24-30 months	'Telegraphic' sentence structures of lexical rather than functional or grammatical morphemes.
Later multiword stage	30+ months	Grammatical or functional structure emerge

Q. Holophrastic (Topic 224)

During this stage a single form functions as a phrase or sentence to describe an utterance that could be analyzed as a word, a phrase, or a sentence. Holophrastic utterances seem to be used to name objects; they may also be produced in circumstances that suggest the child is already extending their use. An empty bed may elicit the name of a sister who normally sleeps in the bed, even in the absence of the person named. During this stage the child may be capable of referring to Karen and bed, but is not yet ready to put the forms together to produce a more complex phrase. It is over expectation from a toddler to expect such thing. The child can only walk with a stagger and has to come downstairs backwards.

Q. Note on One word stage of Language Acquisition: (5) (Topic 224)

Between twelve and eighteen months the child produces a variety of recognizable single-unit utterances. This stage is characterized by speech, in which single terms are uttered for everyday objects like 'Cookie', 'Cat', 'Cup' 'Spoon' (usually pronounced [pun]). Other forms such as [ʌsæ]: A version of 'What's that', so the label 'one-word' for this stage may be misleading, the term such as 'single-unit' would be more accurate.

Q. Telepathic stage of language acquisitions 3marks (Topic 226)

Between two and two-and-a-half years old, the child starts a large number of utterances that could be classified as "multiple-word" speech. The salient feature of these utterances ceases to be the number of words, but the variation in word forms that begins to appear. This is the stage characterized by strings of words (lexical morphemes) in phrases or sentences such as:

- ❖ This shoe all wet
- ❖ Cat drink milk
- ❖ Daddy go bye-bye.
- ❖ Sentence building capacity
- ❖ Can get the word order correct

While this type of telegram-format speech is being produced, a number of grammatical inflections begin to appear, the word forms and simple prepositions (in, on). By the age of two-and-a-half, the child's vocabulary is expanding rapidly and the child is initiating more talk while

increased physical activity includes running and jumping. By three, the vocabulary has grown to hundreds of words and pronunciation has become closer to the form of adult language. At this point, it is worth considering what kind of influence the adults have in the development of the child's speech.

Q. How child is taught to speak? (Topic 228)

The linguistic repertoire of the child increases with the passage of time. The question arises whether the child is being taught or not. The idea is that a child is not really supported by what the child actually does. In the vast majority of children; no one provides any instruction about how to speak the language nor should we picture a little empty head gradually being filled with words and phrases. A more accurate view highlighted the children actively construct from what is said to them, possible ways of using the language. The child's linguistic production appears to be mostly a matter of trying out constructions and testing whether they work or not. A child is not simply imitating adult speech but a child hears and repeats versions of sayings on different occasions.

Q. Overextension in Semantic with one example (3) (Topic 233)

One child first used bow-wow to refer to a dog and then to a fur piece with glass eyes, a set of cufflinks and even a bath thermometer. The word bow-wow seemed to have a meaning like 'object with shiny bits.' Other children often extend bow-wow to refer to cats, cows and horses. This process is called overextension and the most common pattern is for the child to overextend the meaning of a word on the basis of similarities of shape, sound and size, and, to a lesser extent, movement and texture.

Example: Thus the word ball is extended to all kinds of round objects, including a lampshade, a doorknob and the moon.

Q. Which Factor gets affected because of language barriers? (Topic 235)

The experience with an L2 is fundamentally different from that of L1 experience, and it is hardly conducive to acquisition. They usually encounter the L2 during their teenage or adult years, in a few hours each week of school time rather than via the constant interaction experienced as a child with a lot of other things going on and with an already known language available for most of their daily communicative requirements. Despite the fact that insufficient time, focus and incentive undermine many L2 learning attempts; some individuals who seem to be able to overcome the difficulties and develop an ability to use the L2 quite effectively learn the language fast. However, sounding like a native speaker is difficult. Even in ideal acquisition situations, very few adults seem to reach nativelike proficiency in using an L2. There are individuals who can achieve great expertise in the written language, but not the spoken language. One of the greatest examples of this is Joseph Conrad. He wrote a lot of English novels but whenever he used to speak English, he had his Polish accent. This might suggest that some features of an L2,

such as vocabulary and grammar, are easier to learn than others such as pronunciation. Without early experience using the sounds and intonation of the L2, even highly fluent adult learners are likely to be perceived as having an “accent” of some kind.

Q. Wave Model: (Topic 244)

During the 20th century the wave model has had little acceptance as a model for language change overall. It has recently gained more popularity among historical linguists due to the shortcomings of the Tree model. The wave model was originally presented by Johannes Schmidt. In this diagram, the circles are to be regarded as diachronic; that is, they increase in diameter over time, like the concentric waves on a water surface struck by a stone. The circles are stable dialects; characters or bundles of characters that have been innovated and have become more stable over an originally small portion of the continuum for socio-political reasons. These circles spread from their small centers of maximum effectiveness like waves, becoming less effective than dissipating at maximum time and distance from the center. Languages are to be regarded as impermanent sets of speech habits that result from and prevail in the intersections of the circles.

Q. Morphology Processing: (Topic 248)

Computational morphology deals with the processing of words and word forms, in both their graphemic, i.e., written form, and their phonemic, i.e., spoken form. The task of an automatic morphological analyzer is to take a word in a language and break it down into its stem form along with any affixes that it may have attached to that stem. In processing a sentence such as: Hussain reads well,

- ❖ The analysis should be:
- ❖ Hussain as a proper name
- ❖ reads as the third person singular present form of the verb read (read + s)
- ❖ well as either an adverb or a singular noun

Q. How can a computer characterise the grammatical structure of a sentence? Syntactic Processing: (5) (Topic 249)

A syntactic parser tries to find the best grammatical analysis of a sentence. However, there are ambiguous sentence with more than one possible grammatical structure like the following:

- ❖ I can fish
- ❖ For this purpose we use ‘Toy grammar’. This toy grammar recognizes:
- ❖ Four different kinds of VPs: (Aux V, V NP, V, and Aux V NP)
- ❖ Three kinds of NPs (D N, N, and Pronoun)
- ❖ Terminals categories and non-terminals categories

Our toy grammar covers only three different verbs, one auxiliary verb, one determiner, two nouns, and one pronoun, but even so it can describe quite a variety of sentences. Grammars written in this format are called context-free grammars.

Q. Word-sense Disambiguator: (Topic 250)

It uses the context of neighboring words in the sentence as well as other words in the document to figure out which meaning of a given word is most likely. It uses rules that depend on context, and these rules can be derived by human intuition or by training a machine learning program. A word's syntactic and semantic properties are represented in the computer's digital lexicon. A word's syntactic and semantic properties are represented in the computer's digital lexicon.

Q. Define prototypical dictionary (Topic 252)

The prototypical dictionary has the form of a static (book) or dynamic product (e-dictionary) with an inter-structure that establishes links between the various components (e-dictionary) and is usually alphabetically structured. A dictionary provides many useful things.

- ❖ A reference book
- ❖ Record of lexicon of language
- ❖ Quick to find information
- ❖ Serves as a guardian of purity of that language provides information on
- ❖ Spelling, form, meaning, usages of words and fixed collocation

Q. Source Material of Dictionaries: (5) (Topic 253)

The vocabulary of English contains words from more sources than any other language as a consequence of its history and contacts with any other language. The substratum of English is AngloSaxon. Overlaid on this stratum is a Stratum of Latinate vocabulary. The invading Germanic tribes, the Angles, Saxon and Jutes also contributed to its richness. English has imported words from countless languages around the world.

Two basic methods by which a language may increase its vocabulary:

Use of material available

Import word from another language.

All new words are added to the word class: nouns, verbs, adjectives, with the majority being nouns. Other ways of forming words:

Compounding:

Seatbelt, bookshop Derivatives: Careful, shipment Acronyms: ATM, UNESCO Loanwords: Spaghetti (Italian), tycoon (Japanese)

The data from which lexicographers draw their information have to be chosen to suit the type of dictionary they are planning. The sources of lexicographers are:

Primary: Archives, corpus **Secondary:** fieldwork, other dictionaries, encyclopedia, www etc.

Q. Lexicographer has a lot corpus at their end to work with ... (5) (Topic 255)

A dictionary describes the vocabulary of a language or a coherent subset of a language. For each language and subset a set of texts can be assembled which provides evidence of the choices and combinations of choices that are made by users of the language. Such a set of text is called corpus almost always in electronic form nowadays. The adequacy of the corpus depends on its size, its diversity and skill of those who assemble it. A corpus is close to the centre of dictionary project. The lexicographer should formulate a policy concerning the way in which the corpus will be used.

Q. E-Dictionary: (Topic 255)

An electronic dictionary is a dictionary whose data exists in digital form and can be accessed through a number of different media.

- ❖ Electronic dictionaries can be found in several forms, including:
- ❖ as dedicated handheld devices
- ❖ as apps on smartphones and tablet computers or computer software
- ❖ as a function built into an E-reader

As CD-ROMs and DVD-ROMs, they are typically packaged with a printed dictionary to be installed on the user's own computer. As free or paid-for online products most of the early electronic dictionaries were print dictionaries made available in digital form. The content was identical. But the electronic editions provided users with more powerful search functions. But soon the opportunities offered by digital media began to be exploited. Electronic dictionary databases, especially those included with software dictionaries are often extensive and can contain up to 500,000 headwords and definitions, verb conjugation tables, and a grammar reference section. Bilingual electronic dictionaries and monolingual dictionaries of inflected languages often include an interactive verb conjugator, and are capable of word stemming and lemmatization. Electronic dictionaries are also available in logographic and right-to-left scripts, including Arabic, Persian, Chinese, Devanagari, Greek, Hebrew, Japanese, Korean, and Thai. Several developers of the systems that drive electronic dictionary software offer API and SDK – Software Development Kit tools for adding various language-based functions to programs, and web services such as the AJAX API used by Google.

Q. Neurolinguistics (5) (Topic 259)

Neurolinguistics is the study of the neural mechanisms in the human brain that control the comprehension, production, and acquisition of language. As an interdisciplinary field,

neurolinguistics draws methodology and theory from fields such as neuroscience, linguistics, cognitive science, neurobiology, communication disorders, neuropsychology, and computer science. The study of the relationship between language and the brain is called 'Neurolinguistics'. The field of study dates back to the nineteenth century when the location of language in the brain was an early challenge. The accident of Mr. Gage made it clear to the scientists that language may be located in the specific parts of the brain; it is not clearly situated right at the front.

Q. Chinese favorite topic for Linguistic research: (3) (Topic 261)

The favorite topics of study for Chinese researchers included language policy, language teaching, correlation between national ideology and language teaching, translation studies, significance of research in China and theories of language. One of the significant findings of this research is that there was an utter difference between research trends in the first and second decade of the study period in China in the field of applied linguistics.

Q. Difference between discourse and sentences 3marks (Google)

A 'discourse' always has the implication of being a reasonably long explanation or lecture. As such it will inevitably contain many sentences - you would never describe a single sentence as a discourse, unless it was ridiculously convoluted just to make a point.

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